

IBM RDB Administrator Course | Coursera

Summary

Module one

Overview of Database Management Tasks

Day in the Life of a Database Administrator

Objectives

- Understand what a typical day looks like for a DBA.
 - Identify the most common tasks a DBA performs.
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Main Character

Rygel – A database administrator responsible for monitoring and maintaining databases.

Daily Workflow & Responsibilities

1.  **Morning Checks**
 - Ensures databases are running without errors.
 - Uses **preconfigured dashboards** to monitor system status.
 - Resolves alerts (e.g., minor ones without issues).
2.  **Scheduled Tasks Review**
 - Verifies **overnight backups** ran successfully.
 - Confirms tonight's backup schedule is correct.
3.  **Email & Support Tickets**
 - Checks for **user requests** via:
 - Helpdesk
 - Self-service portal
 - Tasks include:
 - Optimizing slow-running queries
 - Query plan analysis
 - Responding to feature requests (e.g., schema updates)
4.  **Stakeholder Collaboration**
 - Attends **planning meetings** for new databases with:
 - Developers
 - Data engineers
 - Data architects

- Focus areas:
 - **High read performance** for BI workloads
 - **Scalability planning**
 - **Stress testing**
 - 5. ✂ **Resource & Alert Configuration**
 - Analyzes needs for:
 - Storage
 - RAM
 - CPU
 - Log file sizing
 - Configures **mobile alerts** for real-time issue detection.
 - 6. 🔄 **Final Checks**
 - Reviews dashboards one last time.
 - Confirms overnight task schedules.
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✅ Key Takeaways

- DBAs maintain database **health, performance, and reliability**.
 - Their day includes **monitoring, user support, optimization, and planning**.
 - **Collaboration** with developers and engineers is essential.
 - **Automation and alerts** help DBAs respond quickly to issues.
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Database Management Lifecycle

🎯 Objectives

- Identify the **stages** of the database lifecycle.
 - List common **tasks** performed in each stage.
 - Recognize **stakeholders** involved in decision-making.
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🔄 Database Life Cycle Stages

1. 📄 **Requirements Analysis**
 - Define **purpose** and **scope** of the database.
 - Identify **data sources**, users, and stakeholders.
 - Develop **sample reports and dashboards**.
 - Stakeholders:
 - Developers
 - Data engineers
 - Administrators
 - End-users
 - Technology managers

- Other DBAs
 - 2.  **Design & Plan**
 - Create a **database model** (instances, tables, relationships).
 - Use **Entity Relationship Diagrams (ERDs)** to map structure.
 - Plan **server resources**:
 - Storage
 - Memory
 - Processing power
 - Log file size
 - Optimize **physical storage** for performance (e.g., high-speed disks).
 - 3.  **Implementation**
 - Deploy database objects (**instances, tables, views, indexes**).
 - Configure **database security** (users, roles, access control).
 - Automate **backups, restores, and deployments**.
 - Import/export data or **migrate databases** between environments.
 - 4.  **Monitor & Maintain**
 - Track **long-running queries** & optimize performance.
 - Review system **reports & alerts** to find inefficiencies.
 - Apply **upgrades and security patches**.
 - Automate **routine tasks** like backups.
 - Ensure **data security** by auditing user access and detecting threats.
 - Adjust user **permissions** (grant/revoke access).
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✓ Key Takeaways

- **Four stages:** Requirements Analysis → Design & Plan → Implementation → Monitor & Maintain.
 - DBAs ensure **database performance, security, and scalability**.
 - **Automation** is crucial for efficiency.
 - Security involves **continuous monitoring, audits, and access control**.
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Lesson's Summary:

- A typical day for a database administrator includes checking the state of the database and resolving any issues, responding to support tickets, meeting with developers and other stakeholders, and monitoring database activity.
 - The stages of the database life-cycle are requirements analysis, design and plan, implementation, and monitor and maintain.
 - That DBAs and other major stakeholders are involved in making decisions during each database lifecycle stage.
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Server Objects and Hierarchy

Database Objects

Database Object Hierarchy

1.  **Instance**
 - The **top-level** structure in an RDBMS.
 - Can contain **one or more databases**.
 - Each database has its own **configuration files** and **system catalog tables**.
 - Multiple instances **isolate environments** (e.g., development vs. production).

2.  **Schema**
 - A **logical grouping** of database objects.
 - Provides a **naming context** to avoid ambiguity.
 - Holds **metadata**, including user permissions, indexes, and partitions.

3.  **Database Objects**
 - **Tables** → Store structured data (rows & columns).
 - **Constraints** → Enforce data rules (e.g., uniqueness, foreign keys).
 - **Indexes** → Improve query performance & enforce uniqueness.
 - **Keys** → Uniquely identify rows (e.g., Primary & Foreign keys).
 - **Views** → Virtual tables based on queries (do not store data).
 - **Aliases** → Alternative names for tables or objects.
 - **Events** → Actions triggered by Data Manipulation (DML) or Data Definition (DDL).
 - **Triggers** → Automated actions on insert, update, or delete.
 - **Log Files** → Store transaction history for recovery & auditing.

Key Takeaways

- **Instance** → Logical boundary for one or more databases.
 - **Schema** → Groups related database objects & prevents naming conflicts.
 - **Database objects** include tables, constraints, indexes, keys, views, triggers, and logs.
 - **Hierarchical structure** helps DBAs manage security, maintenance, and accessibility.
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System Objects and Database Configuration

Objectives

- Understand the **purpose** of system objects.
 - Recognize **different types** of system objects.
 - Explain how to use **configuration files**.
 - Identify common **configuration settings**.
 - Learn how to configure **on-premises vs. cloud** databases.
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System Objects & Metadata

1.  **System Objects & Metadata**
 - **Metadata:** Information about the database structure (tables, indexes, users, etc.).
 - Also known as **data dictionary** or **system catalog**.
 - The RDBMS **automatically maintains** system objects, but users can **query them**.
 2.  **System Objects in Different RDBMSes**
 - **Db2:**
 - **Catalog** → Stores database structure metadata.
 - **Directory** → Stores internal control data (descriptors, access paths).
 - **MySQL:**
 - **System schema** → Stores metadata across multiple databases.
 - Key schemas: `information_schema`, `mysql`, `performance_schema`, `sys`.
 - **PostgreSQL:**
 - **System catalog** → A schema with tables/views for tracking database objects.
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Database Configuration & Initialization

1.  **Configuration Files & Parameters**
 - Stored during **installation** & used when the database **starts up**.
 - Parameters include:
 - **File locations** (data/log files).
 - **Port number** (listening for connections).
 - **Memory allocation & performance tuning settings**.
2.  **Configuration Files in Different RDBMSes**
 - **Db2** → `SQLDBCONF`
 - **MySQL** → `my.ini` (Windows) / `my.cnf` (Linux)
 - **PostgreSQL** → `postgresql.conf`

On-Premises vs. Cloud Configuration

Feature	On-Premises RDBMS	Cloud-Based RDBMS
Changing Settings	Edit config files manually, restart service.	Adjust settings via GUI, no restart needed.
Scaling Resources	Requires manual hardware upgrades.	Can increase storage/compute dynamically.
Performance Tuning	Manual optimization required.	Automated scaling & tuning options.

Key Takeaways

- **System objects store metadata** & help analyze database performance.
 - **Different RDBMSes have different system catalogs** (e.g., MySQL's `performance_schema`, PostgreSQL's system catalog).
 - **Configuration files manage database startup settings** like memory, ports, and performance.
 - **On-premises databases require manual edits & restarts**, while **cloud databases allow dynamic scaling**.
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Database Storage

Objectives

After completing this lesson, you will be able to:

- Differentiate **physical** vs. **logical** storage
 - Describe **Tablespaces** and their **benefits**
 - Explain the role of **Storage Groups**
 - Identify when to use **partitions**
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Physical vs. Logical Storage

Concept	Description
Physical Storage	Actual disk files/directories that store data (e.g., data files, containers)
Logical Storage	Abstract structures that organize data (e.g., tablespaces, tables, indexes)

✓ **Key Point:** Logical storage separates how data is **organized** from how it's **physically stored**, allowing more flexible and efficient management.

Tablespaces

- **Definition:** Logical storage structures containing database objects (tables, indexes, LOBs, etc.)
- **Mapping:** Link **logical objects** to **physical containers** (files, directories, raw devices)

Benefits of Tablespaces

Benefit	Explanation
Performance	Place frequently accessed data (e.g., indexes) on fast SSDs
Recoverability	Backup and restore entire tablespaces easily
Storage Mgmt.	Auto-expand with demand or manually add containers

Example Layout

- Tablespace 1: Small tables → Container 1
 - Tablespace 2: One large table → Container 2 & 3
 - Tablespace 3: Indexes → Container 4
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Storage Groups & Data Temperature

- **Storage Group** = Set of containers with similar performance
- Used for **Multi-Temperature Data Management**

Temperature	Description	Storage Example
Hot	Very frequent access	SSD / high-speed storage
Warm	Moderate access frequency	Mid-range storage
Cold	Rarely accessed / archive data	Slow, cost-effective drives

Use Case

- Tablespace H → Hot data on high-speed devices
 - Tablespaces W1/W2 → Warm data on moderate devices
 - Tablespace C → Cold data on slow storage
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Database Partitioning

- **Definition:** Dividing large tables across multiple logical **partitions**
- Each partition holds a **subset** of the data
- Used in:
 - **Data Warehousing**
 - **Business Intelligence**
 - **Large-scale analytics**

Benefits of Partitioning

- Improves **query performance**
- Supports **parallel processing**
- Makes **data management scalable**

Key Takeaways

- **Physical storage** = actual files; **Logical storage** = abstract management
- **Tablespaces** help structure and optimize storage
- **Storage groups** align storage to data “temperature” for performance/cost efficiency
- **Partitions** enable scalable, high-performance handling of big datasets

Lesson's Summary:

- An instance is a logical boundary for a database or set of databases where you organize database objects and set configuration parameters.
 - Common database objects are items that exist within the database such as tables, constraints, indexes, keys, views, aliases, triggers, events, and log files.
 - Different RDBMSs use different names for their system objects. Most use the terms system schema, system tables, catalog, or directory.
 - Database storage is managed through logical database objects and physical storage.
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Module two

Backup and Restore Databases

Introduction to Backup and Restore

✖ Common Use Cases for Backup & Restore

- 🔄 **Disaster Recovery** (e.g., unplanned shutdown, data loss, corruption)
 - 🔄 **Data Migration** (e.g., change RDBMS)
 - 🔄 **Data Sharing** (e.g., with business partners)
 - 📄 **Development/Test Copy** (e.g., duplicate data for testing environments)
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🧱 Types of Backups

Type	Description	Use Case
Logical	Extracts DDL & DML to recreate objects/data (e.g., <code>CREATE TABLE</code> , <code>INSERT</code>)	Granular backups (e.g., tables, subsets)
Physical	Copies raw data files, config files, and logs (storage-level snapshot)	Fast, full recovery for large/critical DBs

🔄 Logical Backup

- ✅ Backs up individual objects (e.g., tables, schemas)
 - ♻️ Reclaims wasted space during restore
 - ❗ Cannot back up logs or config files
 - 🛠️ Tools: `import`, `export`, `dump`, `load`
 - ⚠️ Slower for large databases, impacts performance
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💿 Physical Backup

- ✅ Includes all physical files (data, logs, configs)
 - ⚡ Faster and more compact for big databases
 - ❌ Can't easily recover individual objects
 - 🔄 RDBMS-specific: must restore to similar system
 - 📁 Common in cloud / enterprise storage systems
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What Can You Back Up?

Depending on your RDBMS and method:

-  Whole databases
 -  Specific schemas
 -  Individual tables
 -  Subsets of table data
 -  Collections of database objects
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Backup Best Practices

Consideration	Why It Matters
 Test Restore Plans	Ensure backups are usable when needed
 Verify Backup Files	Prevent data loss from corrupted/incomplete backups
 Secure Storage	Protect backup files like you protect your actual database
 Validate Regularly	Run periodic test restores to verify recovery process

Optional Backup Features

Feature	Benefit	Trade-Off
Compression	Reduces file size	Takes more time to back up and restore
Encryption	Protects sensitive data	Slower performance during backup/restore

Key Takeaways

- Use **logical backups** for portability and object-level control
 - Use **physical backups** for speed and full recovery
 - Always **test** your backup and **validate** your restore strategy
 - Consider **compression** and **encryption** based on your storage and security needs
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Types of Backup

Backup Types Overview

Backup Type	Description	Backup Speed	Restore Speed	Storage Size	Use Case
Full Backup	Complete copy of all data	❌ Slow	✅ Fast	❌ Large	Simple recovery, baseline for other backups
Point-in-Time	Restore full backup + reapply logs to a specific time	—	✅ Granular	—	Fix recent errors with precision
Differential	Changes since the last full backup	✅ Faster	⚠️ Slower	✅ Smaller	Balanced backup/restore strategy
Incremental	Changes since last backup of any type	✅ Fastest	❌ Slowest	✅ Smallest	Minimal backup time, longer restores

1. Full Backup

- ✅ Easy to restore – just one file
 - ❌ Requires time, bandwidth, and **large storage**
 - 🔄 Redundant if only parts of DB change often
 - 🔒 Needs secure handling (outside RDBMS)
 - ⌚ Restores DB to **state at time of backup**
 - 🛠️ Combine with **logs** for full recovery (e.g., Point-in-Time)
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2. Point-in-Time Backup

- ⌚ Based on **transaction logs**
 - 🔄 Enables recovery to **exact moment** (e.g., before data deletion)
 - ✂️ Recovery process:
 1. Restore full backup
 2. Reapply logs up to chosen time
 - 📁 Log types vary by DBMS:
 - MySQL: Binary log
 - PostgreSQL: Write-Ahead Log
 - Db2: Transaction log
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3. Differential Backup

-  Only backs up **changes since last full backup**
 -  Example:
 - Sunday: Full backup
 - Mon/Tue/Wed: Differential backups
 -  Tuesday restore:
 - Restore full (Sunday) + Tuesday differential
 -  Redundant data increases daily
 -  Slower restore than full, faster than incremental
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4. Incremental Backup

-  Only backs up **changes since last backup** (full *or* incremental)
 -  Example:
 - Sunday: Full backup
 - Monday: Incremental 1
 - Tuesday: Incremental 2
 -  Tuesday restore:
 - Restore full (Sunday) + Incremental 1 + Incremental 2
 -  Least storage required
 -  Longest restore time
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Key Takeaways

- **Full backups** are reliable and easy to restore, but require large storage
 - **Point-in-time recovery** helps restore data up to a precise moment using logs
 - **Differential backups** strike a balance: smaller size, but only one needed for restore
 - **Incremental backups** minimize storage and backup time but increase restore complexity
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Backup Policies

Objectives

By the end of this lesson, you will be able to:

- **Explain the difference** between **hot** and **cold** backups
- **Determine** an appropriate backup policy for different use cases

🔥 Hot vs. Cold Backups

Backup Type	Description	Pros	Cons	Use Case
Hot Backup	Performed while database is active (online)	✅ No downtime ✅ Real-time availability	❌ May slow performance ❌ Risk of inconsistency	24/7 systems (e.g., e-commerce)
Cold Backup	Performed while database is offline (offline)	✅ More reliable ✅ No data changes	❌ Requires downtime ❌ Can't be used in always-on systems	Night maintenance or low-access systems

🧠 Key Concepts for Backup Policies

📌 1. Factors to Consider

- 🔄 **Backup Type:** Full, Differential, Incremental
- 🔥 **Backup Mode:** Hot or Cold
- 🧱 **Backup Level:** Logical vs. Physical
- 🗄️ **Compression** and 🔒 **Encryption**
- ⌚ **Frequency** of changes (e.g., product info vs. customer orders)
- 📦 **Impact of Data Loss** on business

📌 2. When to Back Up?

- 🌐 Data used in **single time zone?** → Run backups **outside working hours**
 - ⌚ Data used **24/7?** → Use **weekend full backups, daily differential/incremental**
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☁️ Cloud Backups

Cloud Provider	Options Available
Db2 on Cloud	🔒 Encrypted daily backup (Standard & Enterprise plans), ✅ Manual + Point-in-time
Google Cloud SQL	✅ Automated incremental backups, 🔄 On-demand backups for MySQL, PostgreSQL, SQL Server
Others	May require manual setups or 3rd-party tools

✖ Backup Strategy Example

Imagine you have an e-commerce app:

- **Customer orders** → change frequently → 🔄 **Daily incremental backups**
 - **Product catalog** → changes rarely → 📅 **Weekly full backup**
 - Use **hot backups** to ensure 24/7 availability
 - Automate backups using RDBMS scheduler or cloud provider tools
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🧠 Key Takeaways

- **Hot backups** = No downtime but risk of inconsistency
 - **Cold backups** = Safer but require downtime
 - Your **backup policy** depends on data usage patterns, business needs, and system availability
 - Most cloud RDBMSs offer **automated backups** with configurable options
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Using Database Transaction Logs for Recovery

🎯 Objectives

After this lesson, you will be able to:

- ✅ Describe what **database transaction logs** are
 - ✅ Explain the **uses of transaction logs**
 - ✅ Identify **where logs are stored and how to access them**
 - ✅ Understand the **typical structure** of a transaction log
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📄 What Are Transaction Logs?

- A **transaction log** is a special file maintained by the **DBMS** to **record all changes** made to the database.
 - Used for **recovery** after failures such as disk crashes or accidental deletions.
 - **Separate** from diagnostic or error logs (which are usually human-readable).
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💡 How Logs Help Recovery (Roll Forward Recovery)

Timeline Example:

- T1: BACKUP → Full backup taken
- T2: FAILURE → Crash or data corruption
- T3: RESTORE → Restore backup taken at T1
- T4: ROLL FORWARD → Apply logs from T1 to T2

- 🔧 This process is called **roll forward recovery**, bringing the DB back to just **before the crash**.

📁 Where Are Logs Stored?

RDBMS	Log File Location	Notes
Db2	sqlogdir directory	Use db2fmtlog tool to view logs
PostgreSQL	pg_xlog (now pg_wal)	Uses Write-Ahead Logging (WAL)
MySQL	Binary logs (.bin)	Use mysqlbinlog tool to view
SQL Server	Default path (can be changed)	Enabled by default

🧠 **Best Practice:** Store transaction logs on **different volumes** than the main database to:

- ✅ Avoid I/O contention
- ✅ Improve crash resilience

🧩 Advanced Recovery Options

- **Mirroring logs:** Automatic duplication to another disk
- **Log shipping:** Copy logs to remote backup/standby servers
- Helps ensure **high availability** for critical systems

⚙️ Enabling and Accessing Logs

RDBMS	Default Logging	How to Check
Db2	✅ Enabled	Use configuration tools or db2fmtlog
SQL Server	✅ Enabled	Default unless modified
MySQL	❌ Disabled by default	Use SHOW BINARY LOGS

Structure of a Log Entry

Each log entry typically contains:

Field	Description
 Log Transaction ID	Unique identifier of the transaction
 Record Type	Type of operation (INSERT, DELETE, DDL, etc.)
 Log Sequence Number (LSN)	Order reference for the log entry
 Previous LSN	Points to the previous related log (linked-list style)
 Change Details	The actual changes made to the database

Key Takeaways

-  **Transaction logs** store all changes to the DB and are critical for **recovery**
 -  **Roll forward recovery** allows you to restore to the point just before failure
 -  Store logs on **separate volumes** for performance & safety
 -  Use **mirroring** or **log shipping** for highly critical systems
 -  Logs are binary and require **special tools** to interpret
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Lesson's Summary:

- The types of backups are full, point-in-time, differential, and incremental.
 - The difference between physical backups and logical backups, and between hot backups and cold backups.
 - Your backup policy should be determined from your recovery needs and your data usage.
 - Database transaction logs keep track of all activities that change the database structure and record transactions that insert, update, or delete data in the database.
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Security and User Management

Overview of Database Security

Layers of Database Security

1. **Physical Security**
 - Ensure servers are physically protected.
 - For on-premise: control access to server rooms.
 - For cloud: the provider is responsible for physical security.
 2. **Operating System Security**
 - Regularly apply patches and updates.
 - Harden the OS by reducing vulnerabilities (secure configuration).
 - Continuously monitor for unauthorized access.
 3. **RDBMS Security**
 - Apply system updates.
 - Use built-in security features and configurations.
 - Restrict administrative privileges to trusted users only.
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Authentication vs. Authorization

◆ Authentication:

- Verifying the identity of users.
- Similar to logging into a device using a password, PIN, or fingerprint.
- Can use external methods like:
 - PAM (Pluggable Authentication Module)
 - Windows login credentials
 - LDAP
 - Kerberos

◆ Authorization:

- Granting access to specific database objects.
 - Permissions can include: `SELECT`, `INSERT`, `UPDATE`, `DELETE`, `ALTER`, etc.
 - Some RDBMSs allow **column-level permissions** for fine-grained control.
 - Use the **Principle of Least Privilege**: give users the minimum access needed to perform their tasks.
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Auditing and Monitoring

- Track who accessed the database and what actions they performed.
- Compare logs with your security policy to detect breaches or risks.
- Helps you identify gaps in your security implementation.

Encryption

- Adds a layer of protection: even if data is stolen, it cannot be read without decryption.
- Comply with industry standards (e.g., GDPR, HIPAA).
- Encryption can affect performance – plan accordingly with proper hardware and key management.

Application Security

- Weak application code can compromise even a secure system.
- Example: SQL Injection attacks.
- Always test and monitor the security of applications that interact with your database.

Key Takeaways

Topic	Summary
Authentication	Verifies identity of users before access
Authorization	Grants specific permissions to interact with database objects
Least Privilege	Users should only access what's strictly necessary
Auditing	Monitors activity to detect threats or policy violations
Encryption	Protects sensitive data even if accessed unlawfully
Application Security	Ensure apps don't expose vulnerabilities (e.g., injection attacks)

Users, Groups, and Roles

Users

- A **user** is an account that can access specific objects within a database.
- Users may be:
 - **Created and authenticated** within the DBMS.
 - Or **externally authenticated** using:
 - Operating system credentials
 - Kerberos
 - LDAP
 - Cloud IAM services (e.g., AWS IAM)

 Usernames are stored in system/catalog tables — **do not modify these tables directly**. Use proper DBMS tools or SQL commands.

- By default, a newly created user has **limited or no privileges**, unless they created the database themselves.

Groups

- Groups are **logical collections of users** used to simplify permission management.
- **Usage varies by DBMS:**
 - In **PostgreSQL**, groups are created and managed **within the database**.
 - In **SQL Server** and **Db2**, database groups can be **mapped to OS groups** for integration with system-level authentication.
 - On **Amazon RDS**, you can use **VPC security groups** or **DB security groups** to manage user access.

Roles

- **Roles** define a set of permissions for a specific function or responsibility.
- Like groups, **roles can be assigned to one or more users**.
- Examples:
 - `backup_operator` → can access and perform database backups.
 - `salesperson` → can read/write customer and sales data.

Most RDBMSs offer **predefined roles**, and also allow you to **create custom roles** based on your needs.

Roles, Groups, and Users: Working Together

Concept	Purpose
Users	Individual identities accessing the database
Groups	Logical sets of users (e.g., by department or function)
Roles	Sets of permissions assigned to users or groups

- A user can belong to **multiple roles or groups**.
 - E.g., A sales manager can be part of both `salesperson` and `management` roles.

✓ Best Practices

- Apply the **Principle of Least Privilege**:
 - Assign only the minimum permissions necessary.
 - Avoid giving excessive privileges through overly broad roles or groups.
- Benefits of using **groups/roles** over individual permissions:
 - Easier to manage.
 - Reduces errors.
 - Simplifies onboarding/offboarding users.
 - Scales better for large teams.

🧠 Key Takeaways

Feature	Description
Users	Authenticated accounts that access database objects.
Groups	Collections of users, useful for managing permissions.
Roles	Define a set of permissions for specific job functions.
Authentication	Can be internal (DBMS-managed) or external (OS, LDAP, etc).
Privilege Assignment	Use groups/roles to simplify and streamline access management.

Managing Access to Databases and Their Objects

📋 Database Privileges

- Once a user is **authenticated**, they still need **privileges** to access database objects.
- **Privileges** can be assigned to:
 - Individual users
 - Groups
 - Roles
- A user's **effective permissions** are the sum of:
 - Their individual privileges
 - Privileges from any groups/roles they belong to

✓ GRANT Statement

The `GRANT` command is used to give specific permissions.

Example: Granting Connection Access

```
GRANT CONNECT ON DATABASE mydb TO salesteam;
```

This grants the `salesteam` group permission to connect to `mydb`.

Example: Granting Table-Level Permissions

```
GRANT SELECT ON mytable TO salesteam;  
GRANT INSERT, UPDATE ON mytable TO johndoe;
```

Grants `salesteam` the ability to view (`SELECT`) data and `johndoe` the ability to modify (`INSERT, UPDATE`) data.

Example: Granting Object Creation

```
GRANT CREATE ON DATABASE mydb TO devteam;
```

Allows users in `devteam` to create objects like tables and procedures.

Example: Granting Execution on Procedures

```
GRANT EXECUTE ON PROCEDURE myproc TO johndoe;
```

Additional Permissions

Permission	Description
SELECT	Read data
INSERT	Add new records
UPDATE	Modify existing records
DELETE	Remove records
CREATE	Create new objects
ALTER	Modify object structure
DROP	Delete objects
EXECUTE	Run stored procedures or functions

⚠ If your DBMS has a default `guest` or `public` account, **revoke** connect privileges to prevent unauthorized access.

REVOKE Statement

Used to remove previously granted permissions:

```
REVOKE SELECT ON mytable FROM johndoe;
```

Removes `SELECT` access from `johndoe` for `mytable`.

However, note:

- If the user belongs to another group or role that **still has the privilege**, the user might retain effective access.

DENY Statement

Use `DENY` to **explicitly block** a permission, even if it was previously granted:

```
DENY SELECT ON mytable TO johndoe;
```

Overrides any `GRANT` and ensures the user **cannot** perform the action.

Key Takeaways

Action	Purpose
<code>GRANT</code>	Assign permissions to users, groups, or roles
<code>REVOKE</code>	Remove previously granted permissions
<code>DENY</code>	Override and block a permission explicitly
	Permissions can be assigned for fine-grained control on objects like tables, procedures, or databases

Auditing Database Activity

What is Auditing?

- **Auditing** is the process of **monitoring and recording database access and user activity**.
 - While it **doesn't directly protect** the database, it helps:
 - Detect **security gaps**
 - Identify **privilege misuse**
 - Investigate **unauthorized access**
 - Track **failed login attempts** (e.g., brute force attacks)
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Why is Auditing Important?

- Auditing provides visibility into **who accessed** what and when.
- In regulated industries, auditing is often a **legal or contractual requirement**.
- It helps verify that actual usage aligns with **security and compliance policies**.
- **Cloud and on-premises** databases should both have auditing enabled.

What to Audit?

Type	Purpose
✓ Successful access	Track normal user activity
✗ Failed login attempts	Detect intrusion or brute force attacks
 DML actions (INSERT, etc.)	Monitor changes made to data
 Object access (tables, etc.)	Identify improper privilege use

Auditing Features in RDBMS

Database	Auditing Feature
Db2 on Cloud	User validation logs authentication events. Change history event monitor tracks table-level changes.
MySQL	Audit log plugin tracks connect and disconnect events.
PostgreSQL	pgAudit extension logs specific or all actions.
General	Triggers can be used to automatically log activity after DML events (e.g., INSERT, UPDATE).

Implementation Tips

- Use **triggers** or **event monitors** to log actions automatically.
 - Audit both:
 - **Access** (login attempts, authentication)
 - **Activity** (modifications, reads)
 - Ensure logs are stored **securely** and reviewed **regularly**.
 - Make sure auditing meets **compliance** and **regulatory** requirements.
-

Key Takeaways

Concept	Summary
Auditing purpose	Detect gaps, track behavior, support compliance
Audit access	Log both successful and failed login attempts
Audit activity	Track changes and object interactions
Tools and methods	Use built-in features, triggers, or third-party plugins
Compliance	Ensure log retention and scope meet legal obligations

Encrypting Data

Learning Objectives

After this lesson, you will be able to:

- Explain the **advantages** of encrypting data
 - Describe **encryption algorithms** and **keys**
 - Compare **symmetric vs. asymmetric** encryption
 - Explain **Transparent Data Encryption (TDE)**
 - Understand **Customer Managed Keys (BYOK)**
 - Identify **encryption-performance trade-offs**
 - Describe how RDBMSs encrypt **data in transit**
-

What is Data Encryption?

- Converts **plaintext data** into **ciphertext** using an **encryption algorithm** and **key**
 - Adds a **layer of security**: if data is compromised, it's unreadable without the key
 - Used to protect:
 - **Data at rest** (stored in DB or backups)
 - **Data in transit** (moving across networks)
-

Encryption Algorithms & Keys

Type	Description
 Symmetric Encryption	Same key for encryption and decryption
Examples:	DES, AES
Pros:	Fast, simpler
Cons:	Key must be shared, risk if compromised

|  **Asymmetric Encryption** | Uses **public-private key pair** | | Examples: | RSA, ECC | | Pros: | More secure, better for sharing | | Cons: | Slower performance |

Transparent Data Encryption (TDE)

- **Encrypts entire database** or tables automatically
- “Transparent” to users and applications
- **Encrypts backups** as well
- Simplifies encryption setup

- Often used for **data at rest**
-

Customer Managed Keys (BYOK)

- You (the customer) manage the encryption keys
 - The **cloud provider handles encryption**, but cannot access the keys
 - Benefits:
 - Maintains **control** over decryption access
 - Enables **key rotation, expiration policies**
 - Separates **data admin** vs **key admin** responsibilities
-

Performance Considerations

Factor	Impact
Encryption Algorithm	More secure = More processing
Symmetric Encryption	Faster, better for performance
Asymmetric Encryption	Slower, best for secure key exchange
TDE and Data in Transit	Can slow down database & network throughput
Column-level Encryption	Fine-grained but more complex and slower

Encrypting Data in Transit

- Encrypts data while it is **moving over the network**
 - Common protocols:
 - **TLS (Transport Layer Security)**
 - **SSL (Secure Sockets Layer)**
 - May be **enabled by default** or require manual configuration in the DBMS
-

Key Takeaways

Concept	Summary
Data encryption	Makes compromised data unreadable
At rest & in transit	Both should be encrypted
Symmetric vs. Asymmetric	Symmetric = fast; Asymmetric = secure
TDE (Transparent Data Encryption)	Simplifies encryption of stored data
BYOK (Customer Managed Keys)	Lets customers control the keys
Performance	Trade-off with security; AES is efficient
TLS/SSL	Encrypts data over network

Lesson's summary

- Authentication is the process of verifying that the user is who they claim to be. Authorization is the process of giving users permissions or privileges to access the objects and data in the database.
- When securing a database, you need to consider the security of the server and operating system, as well as the database and data.
- A database user is a user account that is allowed to access specified database objects. Groups are logical groupings of users to simplify user management. A database role defines a set of permissions needed to undertake a specific role in the database.
- When implementing role or group membership, use the principle of least privilege.
- Auditing does not directly protect your database but does identify gaps in your security.
- Customer-managed keys provide the data owner with more control over their data stored in the cloud.

Module two

Monitoring and Optimization

Overview of Database Monitoring

What is Database Monitoring?

- Refers to tracking the **day-to-day operational status** and **performance** of a relational database.
 - Ensures that **issues are detected early**, system stays healthy, and performance remains optimal.
 - Helps avoid undetected outages that can damage user trust and business revenue.
-

Reactive vs Proactive Monitoring

Reactive Monitoring	Proactive Monitoring
Responds to issues after they occur.	Identifies potential issues before they become critical.
Common during security breaches, slowdowns, or outages.	Uses alerts and metrics to spot anomalies early.
Typically manual intervention.	Often automated and continuous.

✅ **Proactive monitoring** is the preferred approach in database administration.

Establishing a Performance Baseline

To detect abnormalities, you need to:

1. Collect **key performance metrics** (CPU usage, memory, I/O, query response times, etc.) regularly.
 2. Identify **normal operating conditions**: peak times, query response norms, backup durations.
 3. Use this baseline to:
 - Compare against current metrics.
 - Detect anomalies.
 - Guide optimization efforts.
-

Monitoring Techniques

1. Monitoring Table Functions (Real-time)

- Provide real-time stats on database elements (e.g., table size).
- Lightweight and fast.
- Useful for snapshot views of performance.

2. Event Monitors (Historical)

- Track specific events over time (e.g., **deadlocks**, **threshold breaches**).
 - Output saved to tables or logs.
 - Helpful in diagnosing recurring or intermittent issues.
-

Areas Impacting Performance

- **Hardware resources**
- **Network architecture**

- **Operating system**
- **Database & client applications**

Regular monitoring of these areas can help forecast:

- **Hardware needs**
 - **Impact of optimization**
 - **Application-specific issues**
-

✓ Key Takeaways

- Monitoring is essential for maintaining database health and performance.
 - **Proactive monitoring** reduces downtime and helps spot issues early.
 - A **baseline** helps define what "normal" looks like for your system.
 - You can monitor in **real-time** or use **event logs** to capture historical data.
 - Performance issues can stem from various components including hardware, network, OS, or apps.
-

Monitoring Usage and Performance - Part 1

Objectives:

- Explain the importance of monitoring at different levels.
 - Describe the four key levels of database monitoring.
-

Overview: Effective database monitoring requires tracking key performance indicators (KPIs), also known as **metrics**. These metrics are essential not only for performance optimization but also for maintaining availability, operations, and security.

Monitoring helps detect and prevent performance issues early. However, problems can arise from various sources—hardware, software, network, or even query logic. That's why monitoring must happen across **four distinct levels**:

1. Infrastructure Level

- Focuses on the health of foundational components like OS, servers, storage, and network.
- Ensures everything under the database platform is running smoothly.

2. Platform (Instance) Level

- Provides a holistic view of database performance.
- Applies whether you're using a single RDBMS (e.g., MySQL, PostgreSQL) or multiple ones.

3. Query Level

- Targets the performance of SQL queries.
- Bottlenecks at this level often result from inefficient query logic.

4. User (Session) Level

- Monitors individual user sessions.
- Important even when users aren't reporting issues, because proactive monitoring prevents future problems.

✓ Key Takeaways:

- Metrics are vital for measuring and optimizing database performance.
- Monitoring should happen across infrastructure, platform, query, and user levels.
- Continuous, proactive monitoring is the best strategy for achieving high availability, uptime, and low latency.

Monitoring Usage and Performance - Part 2

Key Metrics for Monitoring Databases

1. **Database Throughput**
 - Measures total work done, typically in queries per second.
2. **Resource Usage**
 - Monitors CPU, memory, log space, and storage.
 - Reported as average, max, latest, and time series.
3. **Availability**
 - Shows uptime history as a percentage.
4. **Responsiveness**
 - Measures average response time per query.
5. **Contention**
 - Tracks lock-waits and concurrent connections (resource competition).
6. **Units of Work**
 - Identifies transactions consuming the most resources.
7. **Connections**
 - Shows active network connections and potential bottlenecks.
8. **Most Frequent Queries**
 - Lists most used queries with latency info to help in optimization.
9. **Locked Objects**
 - Displays current locked items and what processes caused the blocks.

10. Stored Procedures

- Aggregated metrics for stored procedures and triggers.

11. Buffer Pools

- Tracks cache usage to improve performance.

12. Top Consumers

- Highlights processes using the most system resources.
-

In-Product Monitoring Tools

- **Db2:** Data Management Console, Workload Manager, Snapshot Monitors.
 - **PostgreSQL:** pgAdmin dashboard (open-source).
 - **MySQL:** Performance Dashboard, Reports, Query Statistics, Query Profiler.
-

Third-Party Monitoring Tools

- **pganalyze** (PostgreSQL): Query plans, analysis, dashboards, logs.
 - **PRTG Network Monitor:** Supports PostgreSQL, MySQL, SQL Server, Oracle.
 - **SolarWinds:** *Database Performance Analyzer* (subscription-based).
 - **Foglight for Databases:** Unified monitoring across platforms.
 - **Datadog:** SaaS with 450+ integrations for various databases.
-

Key Takeaways

- Many metrics help measure database usage and performance.
 - You can monitor using native database tools or third-party solutions.
 - Proactive monitoring improves performance and helps with capacity planning.
-

Optimizing Databases

Objectives:

After this lesson, you will be able to:

- Explain the importance of optimizing databases.
- Use the `OPTIMIZE TABLE` command in **MySQL**.

- Use the `VACUUM` and `REINDEX` commands in **PostgreSQL**.
 - Use the `RUNSTATS` and `REORG` commands in **Db2**.
-

Why Optimize Databases?

Over time, databases may suffer from:

- **Data fragmentation**
- **Partially empty tables**
- **Degraded performance**

Optimizing databases helps to:

- Remove unused space
 - Improve query execution
 - Reduce database response times
-

MySQL: `OPTIMIZE TABLE`

Purpose:

- Reorganizes physical storage of table and index data.
- Reduces fragmentation and improves I/O efficiency.

Syntax:

```
OPTIMIZE TABLE table1, table2, table3;
```

Requirements:

- `SELECT` and `INSERT` privileges

Notes:

- Useful after many `INSERT`, `UPDATE`, or `DELETE` operations.
 - Can also be done via tools like **phpMyAdmin**.
-

PostgreSQL: `VACUUM`

Purpose:

- Reclaims storage space from **dead tuples** (rows marked for deletion).

- Maintains database health.

Syntax:

```
VACUUM;  
VACUUM table_name;  
VACUUM FULL table_name;
```

Options:

- `FULL`: Performs complete copy of the table, freeing space for the OS (slower, locks table).
- Without `FULL`: Faster, no lock required, reclaims space for internal reuse.

Notes:

- If **autovacuum** is enabled, this is handled automatically.
-

PostgreSQL: REINDEX

Purpose:

- Rebuilds corrupted or bloated indexes.

Syntax:

```
REINDEX INDEX myindex;  
REINDEX TABLE mytable;
```

Notes:

- Similar to dropping and recreating an index.
 - You must be the **owner** of the object to reindex it.
-

Db2: RUNSTATS

Purpose:

- Updates statistics used by the optimizer.
- Helps improve query planning and performance.

Syntax:

```
RUNSTATS ON TABLE employees  
  WITH DISTRIBUTION ON COLUMNS emp_id, emp_name;
```



```
RUNSTATS ON INDEXES ALL FOR TABLE employees;
```

💡 Notes:

- Use after heavy updates or after a `REORG`.
 - Can also be applied to **statistical views** if enabled.
-

🔧 Db2: `REORG TABLE` & `REORG INDEX`

🔍 Purpose:

- **`REORG TABLE`**: Eliminates fragmentation in tables, compacts rows.
- **`REORG INDEX`**: Reorganizes index pages into contiguous blocks.

📄 Syntax:

```
REORG TABLE employees USING TEMPSPACE1;
```

```
REORG INDEXES ALL FOR TABLE employees;
```

```
REORG INDEX myindex FOR TABLE employees CLEANUP ONLY;
```

💡 Notes:

- `CLEANUP ONLY` reclaims space without full rebuild.
 - Can target specific indexes or entire tables.
 - Scope includes all database partitions.
-

✅ Key Takeaways

- **MySQL**: Use `OPTIMIZE TABLE` to defragment tables.
 - **PostgreSQL**:
 - `VACUUM` reclaims space from dead tuples.
 - `REINDEX` rebuilds damaged or bloated indexes.
 - **Db2**:
 - `RUNSTATS` updates optimizer statistics.
 - `REORG` reorganizes tables and indexes to reduce fragmentation.
-

Optimizing Queries

- Describe the **query optimization process**.
 - Determine **query execution time**.
 - Understand and use **query execution plans**.
 - Identify **query optimization tools**.
 - Apply **methods to improve query performance**.
-

1. Understanding the Problem

- When facing slow queries:
 - **First, verify** the issue: Is it **intermittent, persistent**, or just **user perception**?
 - Use **RDBMS tools** or **third-party tools** to diagnose.
-

2. Measuring Query Duration

- Use tools like:
 - **MySQL slow query log**.
 - **PostgreSQL timing** command.
 - **Shell time** command.
 - Understand **what's being measured**: Is it server-only time or includes **network latency**?
-

3. Query Execution Plans

- Shows the **steps to access data** in a SQL query.
 - Methods to view plans:
 - **EXPLAIN** statements (text-based).
 - **Graphical tools** (Visual EXPLAIN).
 - Execution plans differ across RDBMS (PostgreSQL, MySQL, DB2).
-

4. Role of Query Optimizer

- Most RDBMS have a **query optimizer**:
 - It selects the most efficient plan based on internal evaluation.
 - DBAs can **manually inspect/tune** if needed.
 - You can use **hints** in SQL to influence optimizer behavior (e.g., force index usage).
-

5. Visual EXPLAIN Tools

- **PostgreSQL:** pgAdmin shows graphical plans.
 - **MySQL:** Workbench supports multiple EXPLAIN formats including visual.
 - **DB2:** Visual Explain uses graphs for SQL/XQuery analysis.
 - Diagram flows **bottom to top, left to right**.
 - Boxes = Tables, Diamonds = Joins.
 - Box text shows table name, index used, row counts, and cost.
-

6. Third-Party Optimization Tools

- **SolarWinds Database Performance Analyzer**
 - Supports MySQL, DB2, Oracle, Azure SQL, etc.
 - Displays **wait times, CPU, memory, and network stats**.
 - **dbForge Studio**
 - Includes **Query Profiler, Index Manager, and Code Explorer**.
 - Supports SQL Server, Oracle, MySQL, PostgreSQL.
 - **EverSQL**
 - Automatic query rewriting, indexing suggestions.
 - Supports MySQL, MariaDB, PerconaDB.
-

7. Improving Query Performance

- Understand **data behavior** and apply good design:
 - Use **correct data types**.
 - Use **indexes wisely**.
 - Avoid overly **complex queries** with excessive joins/subqueries.
 - Use **variables** to optimize repeated access.
 - Use **SELECT column_names** instead of `SELECT *`.
-

Key Takeaways

- Query optimization involves:
 1. Measuring performance.
 2. Diagnosing issues.
 3. Applying fixes based on execution plans and design.
 - Tools like **EXPLAIN, Visual EXPLAIN, and performance analyzers** are critical.
 - Good **query design** and understanding **data behavior** greatly improve performance.
-

Using Indexes

What is a Database Index?

- A **database index** is like a book index—it improves search speed by referencing data positions.
 - Without indexes, a DBMS must perform a **full table scan**, which is inefficient for large datasets.
 - An index is an **ordered copy of specific columns** from a table, used to accelerate queries.
-

Benefits of Indexes

- Speeds up **search**, **filter**, and **join** operations.
 - Acts as a **lookup table** pointing to the actual rows in the base table.
 - Commonly created on **frequently queried columns**.
-

Types of Indexes

Type	Description
Primary Key	Unique, non-nullable, clustered index (one per table).
Secondary Index	Non-clustered, can include multiple or single columns.
Unique Index	Ensures no duplicate values exist in the indexed column(s).
Non-Unique Index	Allows duplicates; used for performance, not data integrity.

 *Clustered indexes store table data in the same order as the index. Non-clustered do not.*

Creating Primary Keys & Indexes

Creating a primary key at table creation:

```
CREATE TABLE team (  
    team_id INT PRIMARY KEY,  
    team_name VARCHAR(100)  
);
```

Using multiple columns in a primary key:

```
PRIMARY KEY (column1, column2)
```

Auto-generating IDs:

- **Db2:** GENERATED BY DEFAULT AS IDENTITY
 - **MySQL:** AUTO_INCREMENT
-

Creating a standard index:

```
CREATE INDEX job_by_dpt ON employee (workdept, job);
```

Creating a unique index:

```
CREATE UNIQUE INDEX unique_nam ON project (projname);
```

Dropping Indexes

Drop an index:

```
DROP INDEX job_by_dpt;
```

 *You cannot directly drop primary or unique key indexes with `DROP`. Use `ALTER TABLE` to remove the constraint first.*

Considerations When Designing Indexes

1. **Understand usage patterns:** e.g., OLTP vs. analytical queries.
 2. **Focus on frequent queries:** especially joins and filters.
 3. **Know column characteristics:** uniqueness, data type, distribution.
 4. **Index size matters:**
 - **Narrow indexes** → faster, less space.
 - **Wide indexes** → broader coverage, more space & maintenance.
 5. **Optimize placement:** e.g., store indexes on separate disks for better I/O performance.
 6. **Use `ONLINE` option for large tables** to maintain concurrency during indexing.
-

Key Takeaways

- Indexes dramatically improve performance but come with **storage and maintenance trade-offs**.
 - Choose index types based on **query behavior** and **data characteristics**.
 - Always consider **indexing strategy** as part of database performance optimization.
-

Lesson's Summary:

- Database performance is measured by using key performance indicators, known as metrics, that enable DBAs to optimize organizations' databases.
 - You should monitor at the infrastructure, platform, query, and user levels.
 - A database diagnostic log file, also known as an error log or troubleshooting log, contains timestamped messages for various types of informational messages, events, warnings, and error details.
 - Database optimization commands include OPTIMIZE TABLE in MySQL, VACUUM, and REINDEX in PostgreSQL, and RUNSTATS and REORG in Db2.
 - Query execution plans show details of the steps used to access data when running query statements.
-

Module four

Troubleshooting & Automation

Troubleshooting Common Issues

Objectives

- Identify and describe common database issues related to **performance**, **configuration**, and **connectivity**.
 - Apply **basic troubleshooting steps** to solve typical problems.
 - Understand the **tools and methods** used for identifying and resolving issues.
-

Understanding Troubleshooting

Troubleshooting is the process of **identifying and solving problems**, beginning with key diagnostic questions:

- **What** are the symptoms?
 - **Who/what** is reporting the problem?
 - **Where** is it occurring?
 - **When** does it occur?
 - **Under what conditions** is it reproducible?
-

Common Database Issues

1. Poor Performance

Caused by:

- High **latency** in disk reads/writes.
- Slow **server processing**.
- Weak **client-server connection**.

Possible roots:

- Insufficient hardware (**CPU, RAM, Disk**).
- Improper **database configuration**.
- Poorly optimized **queries** or **application logic**.

✂ Solutions:

- **Vertical scaling**: Add CPU, RAM, disk space.
 - **Horizontal scaling**: Add database partitions/shards.
 - Tune **caching, buffering**, and **indexing**.
-

2. Improper Configuration

Common causes:

- Misconfigured **clients, servers, or databases**.

Examples:

- Incorrect client drivers.
- Outdated authentication or connection methods.
- Limited allowed database connections.

✂ Solutions:

- Verify correct **login credentials, host/IP**, and **authentication method**.
 - Ensure **driver** is compatible and up to date.
 - Adjust **database settings** (caching, indexing, connection limits).
-

3. Poor Connectivity

Issues include:

- Database/server not reachable.
- Instance not running.
- Incorrect credentials or **SSL settings**.

🔧 Troubleshooting Steps:

- Verify **server status** (physical or virtual).
 - Confirm the **DB instance** is active.
 - Use `PING` to test **network reachability**.
 - Check client **connection settings**, including driver configs.
-

🔍 Tools for Troubleshooting

✅ Performance Monitoring

- Detect bottlenecks early.
- Evaluate server/database capacity.
- Use **dashboards** for real-time alerts and historical metrics.

📊 Reports & Logs

- Provide detailed insights into:
 - What happened.
 - When it occurred.
 - Possible causes.
-

📌 Key Takeaways

- **Common issues** = performance, configuration, and connectivity problems.
 - Poor performance stems from **latency**, **server load**, or **network issues**.
 - Configuration problems may require tuning settings or updating drivers.
 - Connectivity failures often relate to **server status**, **credentials**, or **client misconfiguration**.
 - Use **monitoring tools**, **logs**, and **reports** to detect and fix problems proactively.
-

Using Status Variables, Error Codes, and Documentation

🎯 Lesson Objectives:

- Describe how to check server status.
 - Retrieve and understand error codes and messages.
 - Use RDBMS documentation to troubleshoot problems.
-

1. Checking Database Server Status

Common Tools & Commands:

Different databases and environments use different tools:

Database	Command/Tool
MySQL	SHOW STATUS or SERVICE MYSQL STATUS
Db2	db2pd
PostgreSQL	pg_isready
SQL Server (Windows)	Activity Monitor, System Monitor

Status Variable Types:

- **GLOBAL:** Show overall server status (e.g., Aborted_connects, Bytes_sent).
- **SESSION (LOCAL):** Specific to the current session or connection.

Example:

Use `SHOW STATUS LIKE 'Key%'` to filter variables by name.

2. Using Logs to Identify Errors

Common Log Types:

- **Server & OS Logs:** Show general server activity and connection info.
- **Database Error Logs:** Show internal DBMS issues and errors.

SQL Server Log Examples:

- **Error Log:** Created every time SQL Server starts.
 - **Event Log:** Shows both informational and error events.
 - **Default Trace Log:** Tracks config changes (optional log).
-

3. Interpreting Error Messages

Error messages usually include:

- **Message + ID Number** (for quick troubleshooting).
 - **Procedure name, DB state, and Severity.**
 - **Line number**, if error occurred in a script or batch.
-

4. Using Documentation for Troubleshooting

Helpful Official Docs:

- **Db2:** ibm.com/docs/db2
 - **PostgreSQL:** postgresql.org/docs
 - **SQL Server:** docs.microsoft.com/sql
 - **MySQL:** dev.mysql.com/doc
-

Key Takeaways:

- Databases offer command-line and GUI tools to check server health.
 - Status variables help monitor system-wide or session-specific activity.
 - Log files help pinpoint when/where issues occur.
 - Error messages contain useful codes and details for debugging.
 - Official documentation is the best resource for decoding errors.
-

Using Logs for Troubleshooting

Learning Objectives:

- Describe what diagnostic logs are and why they're used.
 - List different types of diagnostic logs.
 - Identify common components within log entries.
 - Explain where logs are stored and how to access them.
-

What Are Diagnostic Logs?

- **Diagnostic logs** (also called error logs or event logs) record significant system or application events.
- Used mainly for **troubleshooting** — identifying the cause of faults in hardware/software systems.
- Logs track events, warnings, and errors in **chronological order**.

Examples:

- A missing file error on a web server.
 - A failed database backup operation.
 - Low disk space warnings.
-

Types of Diagnostic Logs:

- **Database logs**
- **System logs**
- **Network logs**
- **Application logs**
- **Hardware/storage logs**

♦ **DBAs focus primarily on database logs**, while sysadmins monitor other types.

Log Entry Components:

A typical log message includes:

- Type (event, info, warning, error)
 - Severity
 - Error code/message
 - Timestamp
 - User details (IP, user agent)
 - Affected location or component
-

Where Logs Are Stored & How to Access:

- Most logs are plain text files viewable in any text editor.
- Some may require special viewers if machine-readable.

Examples by Database:

♦ **Db2**

- Log file: `db2diag.log`
- Can be configured (location, severity level)

♦ **PostgreSQL**

- Configured via `postgresql.conf`
- Logging methods: `stderr`, `syslog`, `event log`, `CSVLOG`
- Default directory: `pg_log`

♦ **MySQL**

- Main logs:
 - **Error Log** (most critical)
 - **Slow Query Log**

- **General Query Log**
- Configured via `log_error` and `log_error_verbosity` (Level 1–3)

📌 **Note:**

MySQL error log verbosity levels:

- Level 1: Errors only
 - Level 2: Errors + Warnings
 - Level 3: Errors + Warnings + Notes (default)
-

🧠 **Key Takeaways:**

- Diagnostic logs help DBAs and system admins troubleshoot efficiently.
 - Logs include valuable data like timestamps, severity, and error codes.
 - Most databases allow flexible log configuration (format, location, and verbosity).
 - Understanding how to read and interpret logs is crucial for diagnosing issues quickly.
-

Overview of Automating Database Tasks

🎯 **Learning Objectives**

- Identify what database automated tasks are.
 - Explain the benefits of scripting to automate tasks.
 - List common database automation tasks.
 - Describe the benefits of automating tasks.
 - Recognize the role automation plays in database testing.
-

⚙️ **What is Database Automation?**

- **Database automation** uses unattended processes and self-updating procedures to perform administrative tasks.
- It leverages existing tools and processes to simplify and speed up administration.
- Key benefits:
 - Fewer deployment errors.
 - Higher reliability and faster change implementations.
 - Frees up staff for more strategic work.
- Ideal for repetitive, time-consuming tasks like:
 - Database health checks
 - Sending alerts
 - Maintenance operations

What is Script Automation?

- **Script automation** is the process of reusing scripts in a managed framework without rewriting them every time.
- Common scripting tasks include:
 - Backing up and clearing event logs
 - Automating networking tasks
 - Monitoring performance
 - Reading/writing registry values
 - Managing users, computers, printers, and services

Common Scripted DBA Tasks

- Scripts can automate:
 - Backup, truncate, load, and restore databases
 - Sending error notifications
 - Moving archive logs
 - Scheduling reports
 - Deploying code changes
- Use **version control systems** to track changes and maintain database/script history.

Tools & Languages

- Automation can be achieved using:
 - Built-in database tools
 - Cron jobs
 - Shell scripts
 - Python
 - Other scripting languages

Benefits of Automation

- Increased productivity
 - Higher quality and consistency
 - Greater robustness of processes
 - Reduced human error
 - Frees workforce for higher-level tasks
-

Tasks You Can Automate

- Database Health Check
 - Alert Log File Cleanup
 - Trace File Cleanup
 - Data Dictionary Statistics
 - Database Configuration Check
 - Schema Object Check
 - Routine Tasks via GUI Tools (e.g., backups, reports)
-

What is Database Testing?

- Involves verifying schema, tables, triggers, etc., in a controlled environment.
 - Ensures:
 - Data integrity and consistency
 - No data loss
 - Aborted transactions are handled
 - Protection from unauthorized access
-

Benefits of Automated Testing

- Faster and cheaper than manual testing
 - Can be run repeatedly at no extra cost
 - Increases depth, quality, and security of tests
 - Provides visibility into memory, data tables, files, and system states
-

Key Takeaways

- Database automation simplifies and improves administrative tasks.
 - Scripting makes automation easier and more manageable.
 - Automation boosts performance, reliability, and consistency.
 - Automated testing is faster, more secure, and more thorough than manual testing.
-

Automating Reports and Alerts

Learning Objectives

- Distinguish between reports, notifications, and alerts.
- Describe how DBAs use each of them.

- Identify common best-practice alerts.
 - Explain how to automate these components.
-

What Are Reports?

- **Reports** provide regular insights into the health of databases.
 - Typical metrics include:
 - Number of successful/failed logins
 - Disk space used and growth rate
 - Query execution count
 - **Purpose:**
 - Monitor health and trends over time
 - Proactively address potential issues
 - Support planning for future needs
 - **Automation:**
 - Can be scheduled daily, weekly, or monthly
 - Managed by a team or individual DBA
 - Some organizations use **third-party reporting tools** for enhanced functionality
-

What Are Notifications?

- **Notifications** alert the DBA to **non-urgent events** that still require monitoring.
 - Examples:
 - Failed login attempts
 - Job start/stop events
 - Useful for:
 - Tracking user behavior
 - Detecting patterns that may indicate future issues (e.g., brute-force attempts)
 - **Delivery Methods:**
 - SMS
 - Email
 - Dashboard messages
 - **Customization:**
 - Choose the events to be notified about
 - Choose how and when to receive them
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What Are Alerts?

- **Alerts** are triggered by **critical or high-priority issues**.
- Examples:

- Very low disk space
 - Failed scheduled jobs
 - Critical database errors
 - Best Practices:
 - Use **thresholds** to control severity:
 - Warning threshold (e.g., 85%)
 - Critical threshold (e.g., 95%)
 - Avoid "alert fatigue" by limiting to truly important events
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How to Automate Reports, Notifications, and Alerts

- Most **RDBMSs** offer automation features through:
 - Graphical interfaces (GUI)
 - Command-line tools
 - Custom scripts (e.g., Shell, SQL, Python)
 - Features:
 - Configure frequency, recipients, and delivery methods
 - Customize templates or use system-provided reports
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Key Takeaways

- **Reports** offer periodic health overviews and help track trends.
 - **Notifications** are used for tracking events that may become problematic.
 - **Alerts** are used to quickly raise awareness of urgent issues.
 - **Automation** helps DBAs stay ahead of problems, reduce workload, and respond appropriately based on the severity of events.
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Summary & Highlights

- Performance monitoring, dashboards and reports, and server/database logs help identify bottlenecks.
 - Database automation is the use of unattended processes and self-updating procedures for basic database tasks.
 - Some automation processes include backing up, truncating, and restoring databases.
 - Reports give a regular overview of database health, notifications give a forewarning of a situation that could become troublesome if not addressed, and alerts bring awareness to an issue that needs immediate attention.
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